Algebraic Topology

Shing Tak Lam

Michaelmas 2023*

Contents

1 **Introduction** 1

2 **(Co)homology** 2
- 2.1 Co(chain) complexes . . . 2
- 2.2 Singular (co)homology . . . 4
  - 2.2.1 Basic computations . . . 6
- 2.3 Fundamental properties . . . 8
- 2.4 Examples of Homology calculations . . . 9
- 2.5 Homotopy invariance . . . 16
- 2.6 Snake lemma . . . 17
- 2.7 Excision . . . 19
- 2.8 Relative homology . . . 20
- 2.9 Small simplices theorem . . . 22

3 **Cellular homology** 25
- 3.1 Definitions . . . 25

Lecture 1

1 Introduction

Let X, Y be topological spaces, $f, g : X \to Y$ be continuous functions. Note we will use the terminology 'map $:=$ continuous function'. We say that f *is homotopic to* g, written $f \simeq g$, if there exists a map $F : X \times I \to Y$, such that

$$F|_{X\times\{0\}} = f \quad \textit{and} \quad F|_{X\times\{1\}} = g$$

Here $I = [0, 1]$ carries its Euclidean topology. An exercise (sheet 1) is that this defines an equivalence relation on the set of maps $X \to Y$.

Definition 1.0.1 (homotopy equivalence)

We say that $f : X \to Y$ is a *homotopy equivalence* if there exists a function $g : Y \to X$ such that $f \circ g \simeq \mathrm{id}_Y$ and $g \circ f \simeq \mathrm{id}_X$. We say that g is a *homotopy inverse* to f.

The same exercise on sheet 1 shows that homotopy equivalence is an equivalence relation on topological spaces.

Example 1.0.2

1. If $f : X \to Y$ is a homeomorphism, then f is also a homotopy equivalence.
2. $i : \{0\} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is a homotopy equivance.
3. The inclusion $i : S^{n-1} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^n \setminus 0$ is a homotopy equivalence.

*Based on lectures by Ivan Smith. Last updated October 25, 2023.

Definition 1.0.3

A space X is *contractible* if it is homotopy equivalent to a point.

Idea of Algebraic Topology: Study spaces up to homotopy equivalence. Broadly, we are interested in "connectivity properties" of topological spaces.

Example 1.0.4

1. We say a space X is *path-connected* if any two maps $\{*\} \to X$ are homotopic. For example, $\mathbb{R}$ is path connected, $\mathbb{R} \setminus \{0\}$ is not. A corollary of this is the intermediate value theorem.
2. We say a path connected space X is *simply connected* if every map $f : S^1 \to X$ is homotopic to a constant map. Equivalently, every two maps $S^1 \to X$ are homotopic. Or equivalently (again) every continuous map $S^1 \to X$ extends to a continuous map $D^2 \to X$. For example, $\mathbb{R}^2$ is simply connected, by $\mathbb{R}^2 \setminus \{0\}$ is not. If $\gamma : S^1 \to \mathbb{R}^2 \setminus \{0\}$ is continuous, it has a *winding number*, or *degree* $\deg(\gamma) \in \mathbb{Z}$, such that
   - It is invariant under homotopy,
   - If $\gamma_n(t) = \exp(2n\pi it)$, then $\deg(\gamma_n) = n$

   In particular, taking $n = 0$ gives the constant map. Therefore, a constant map has degree 0. A corollary of this is the fundamental theorem of algebra.
3. We say a path connected space X is *k-connected*, if for all $i \leq k$, every map $S^i \to X$ is homotopic to a constant map. In this case, $\mathbb{R}^n$ is $(n-1)$-connected, but $\mathbb{R}^n \setminus 0$ is not. More precisely, maps from $S^{n-1} \to \mathbb{R}^n \setminus 0$ have a degree $\deg(f) \in Z$, such that degree is a homotopy invariant, and the degree of the inclusion map is 1, and the degree of the constant map is 0. A corollary of this is the Brouwer fixed point theorem.

Lecture 2

2 (Co)homology

2.1 Co(chain) complexes

We will define invariants of topological spaces in two steps:

(a) We associate to X a (co)chain complex,

(b) We take the (co)homology of the complex

The topology enters in step (a), whereas (b) is just homological algebra.

Definition 2.1.1 (chain complex)

A *chain complex*@ (C_*, ∂) consists of a sequence $\{C_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{Z}}$ of abelian groups, along with *boundary homomorphisms* $\partial_n : C_n \to C_{n-1}$ for all n, satisfying $\partial_n \circ \partial_{n+1} = 0$. We also write this conditions as $\partial^2 = 0$.

Definition 2.1.2 (homology group)

The *i-th homology group* of a chain complex (C_*, ∂) is

$$\mathrm{H}_i(C_*, \partial) = \frac{\ker(\partial_i : C_i \to C_{i-1})}{\mathrm{im}(\partial_{i+1} : C_{i+1} \to C_i)}$$

We write

$$\mathrm{H}_*(C_*, \partial) = \bigoplus_{i \in \mathbb{Z}} \mathrm{H}_i(C_*, \partial)$$

Definition 2.1.3 (cochain complex)

A *cochain complex* (C^*, ∂) consists of a sequence $\{C^i\}_{i \in \mathbb{Z}}$ of abelian groups, along with *boundary homomorphisms* $\partial^n : C^n \to C^{n+1}$ for all n, satisfying $\partial^{n+1} \circ \partial^n = 0$. We also write this conditions as $\partial^2 = 0$.

Definition 2.1.4 (cohomology group)

The *i-th cohomology group* of a cochain complex (C^*, ∂) is

$$\mathrm{H}^i(C^*, \partial) = \frac{\ker(\partial^i : C^i \to C^{i+1})}{\mathrm{im}(\partial^{i-1} : C^{i-1} \to C^i)}$$

We write

$$\mathrm{H}^*(C^*, \partial) = \bigoplus_{i \in \mathbb{Z}} \mathrm{H}_i(C^*, \partial)$$

Notation 2.1.5. Elements of $\ker(\partial)$ are called *cycles* (in a chain complex), *cocycles* (in a cochain complex). Elements of $\mathrm{im}(\partial)$ are called *boundaries* (and *coboundary* resp.).

Elements of H_* are called *homology classes*, and elements of H^* are called *cohomology classes*.

We will call ∂ the *differential*.

Definition 2.1.6 (chain map)

Given chain complex (C_*, ∂), (D_*, ∂), a *chain map* $f : C_* \to D_*$ comprises group homomorphism $f_i : C_i \to D_i$, such that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} C_i & \xrightarrow{f_i} & D_i \\ {\scriptstyle\partial}\downarrow & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle\partial} \\ C_{i-1} & \xrightarrow[f_{i-1}]{} & D_{i-1} \end{array}$$

commutes.

Lemma 2.1.7. A chain map $f : C_* \to D_*$ induces homomorphisms $f_* : \mathrm{H}_i(C_*) \to \mathrm{H}_i(D_*)$.

Proof. Let $a \in \mathrm{H}_i(C_*)$, and we can choose a cycle $\alpha \in C_i(C_*)$, with $\partial\alpha = 0$. In this case,

$$\partial f_i(\alpha) = f_{i-1}(\partial\alpha) = f_{i-1}(0) = 0$$

So $f_i(\alpha) \in D_i$ is a cycle. We set $f_*(a) = [f_i(\alpha)] \in \mathrm{H}_i(D_*)$. Next, we need to show that this is independent of choices. Suppose $a = [\alpha] = [\alpha']$. Then $\alpha - \alpha' \in \mathrm{im}(\partial)$. Therefore, we can write $\alpha - \alpha' = \partial\tau$. In this case,

$$f_i(\alpha) - f_i(\alpha') = f_i(\partial\tau) = \partial f_{i+1}(\tau) \in \mathrm{im}(\partial)$$

So we conclude $[f_i(\alpha)] = [f_i(\alpha')] \in \mathrm{H}_i(D_*)$. It is clear that f_* defines a homomorphism. □

Correspondingly, we can define *cochain maps* $C^* \to D^*$, that is, $f^i : C^i \to D^i$ such that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} C^{i+1} & \xrightarrow{f^{i+1}} & D^{i+1} \\ \uparrow{\scriptstyle \partial} & & \uparrow{\scriptstyle \partial} \\ C^i & \xrightarrow[f^i]{} & D^i \end{array}$$

commutes.

Exercise: This construction is functorial. That is, $(\mathrm{id}_{C_*})_* = \mathrm{id}_{H_*}$, and if we have $f : C_* \to D_*, g : D_* \to E_*$, then $(g \circ f)_* = g_* \circ f_*$.

Goal: To associate to a topological space X (co)chain complex $C_*(X)$ and $C^*(X)$. The definition works for any X, but the theories are better behaved for "nicer" X.

2.2 Singular (co)homology

We will develop singular (co)homology.

Definition 2.2.1 (standard simplex, face)

The *standard simplex* is

$$\Delta^n = \left\{ (t_0, \dots, t_n) \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \mid t_i \geq 0, \sum_i t_i = 1 \right\}$$

The i-th face Δ^n is

$$\Delta^n_i = \Delta^n \cap \{t_i = 0\}$$

and we have a canonical homeomorphism

$$\begin{aligned} \delta_i : \Delta^{n-1} &\to \Delta^{n-1}_i \\ (t_0, \dots, t_{n-1}) &\mapsto (t_0, \dots, t_{i-1}, 0, t_i, \dots, t_{n-1}) \end{aligned}$$

Definition 2.2.2 (singular simplex, singular chain complex)

If X is a topological space, a *singular n-simplex* in X is a continuous map $\sigma : \Delta^n \to X$.

The *singular chain complex* is given by the the free abelian groups

$$C_i(X) = \bigoplus_{\sigma \text{ singular } n\text{-simplex}} \mathbb{Z}\sigma$$

We define the boundary map $C_i(X) \to C_{i-1}(X)$ via

$$\partial\sigma = \sum_{j=0}^{i} (-1)^j \sigma|_{\Delta^i_j}$$

where

$$\sigma|_{\Delta^i_j} := \sigma \circ \delta_j : \Delta^{n-1} \to X$$

Note if $\{v_i\}_{i=0}^n$ are $n+1$ ordered points in $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, and if $\{v_i - v_0\}_{i=1}^n$ are linearly independent, then the convex hull of $v_0, \dots, v_n$ is an n-simplex, which we will call

$$[v_0, \dots, v_n]$$

which is given by the map

$$\begin{aligned} \Delta^n &\to \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \\ t &\mapsto \sum_i t_i v_i \end{aligned}$$

We orient the edges of the standard simplex (and thus any simplex $[v_0, \dots, v_n]$) by saying that $v_i < v_j$ if $i < j$.

More concretely, for $n = 2$, we have the oriented edges $v_0 \to v_1, v_0 \to v_2, v_1 \to v_2$.

Lemma 2.2.3. $\partial^2 = 0$.

Proof. If σ is an n-simplex, defined on $[v_0, \dots, v_n]$, then

$$\partial\sigma = \sum_j (-1)^j \sigma|_{[v_0,\dots,\widehat{v_j},\dots,v_n]}$$

and so

$$\partial(\partial\sigma) = \sum_{i<j} (-1)^i (-1)^j \sigma|_{[v_0,\dots,\widehat{v_i},\dots,\widehat{v_j},\dots,v_n]} + \sum_{i>j} (-1)^{i+1} -1^j \sigma|_{[v_0,\dots,\widehat{v_j},\dots,\widehat{v_i},\dots,v_n]} = 0$$

since the signs cancel. □

Definition 2.2.4

The *singular homology groups of* X, $\mathrm{H}_i(X)$, are the homology groups of the singular chain complex.

Remark 2.2.5. Since all we used is the topology on X, $\mathrm{H}_i(X)$ is clearly a topological (read homeomorphism) invariant of X.

Moreover, if $f : X \to Y$ is continuous, $\sigma : \Delta^n \to X$ is an n-simplex on X, then $f \circ \sigma$ is an n-simplex on Y. The fact that

$$(f \circ \sigma) \circ \delta_j = f \circ (\sigma \circ \delta_j)$$

shows that f induces a chain map.

Lecture 3

Definition 2.2.6 (singular cochain complex)

The *singular cochain complex* of X has

$$C^i(X) = \mathrm{Hom}_{\mathbb{Z}}(C_i(X), \mathbb{Z})$$

and the boundary operator

$$\partial^* \psi(\sigma) = \psi(\partial\sigma)$$

for $\psi \in C^i(X), \sigma \in C_{i+1}(X)$. That is, it is adjoint to $\partial : C_i(X) \to C_{i-1}(X)$.

Since $\partial^2 = 0, (\partial^*)^2 = 0$. The *singular cohomology* is

$$\mathrm{H}^*(X) = \bigoplus_{i \geq 0} \mathrm{H}^i(C^*, \partial^*)$$

If $f : X \to Y$ continuous, then f induces a chain map $f_* : C_*(X) \to C_*(Y)$ via $f_*(\sigma) = f \circ \sigma$, satisfying $\partial f_* = f_* \partial$. Similarly, $f : X \to Y$ defines a *pullback map* $f^* : C^*(Y) \to C^*(X)$, given by

$$f^*(\psi)(\tau) = \psi(f_*(\tau))$$

Again, we have that

$$\partial^* f^*(\psi)(\tau) = f^* \psi(\partial\tau) = \psi(f_* \partial\tau) = \psi(\partial f_* \tau) = (\partial^* \psi)(f_* \tau) = f^*(\partial^* \psi)(\tau)$$

So f^* is a cochain map, i.e. $\partial^* f^* = f^* \partial^*$. Therefore, we have an induced homomorphism on cohomology,

$$f^* : \mathrm{H}^*(Y) \to \mathrm{H}^*(X)$$

Warning: by definition,

$$C^i(X) = \mathrm{Hom}_{\mathbb{Z}}(C_i(X), \mathbb{Z})$$

but it is not true (in general) that

$$\mathrm{H}^i(X) = \mathrm{Hom}_{\mathbb{Z}}(\mathrm{H}_i(X), \mathbb{Z})$$

2.2.1 Basic computations

Lemma 2.2.7 (homology of a point)**.** Let $X = \{\bullet\}$. Then

$$\mathrm{H}_n(X) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z} & n = 0 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Proof. By definition, $C_i(X)$ is the free abelian groups on continuous map $\Delta^i \to \{\bullet\}$. But there is only one such map, namely the constant map (for $i \geq 0$). Hence the chain complex looks like

$$\cdots \longrightarrow C_2(X) \longrightarrow C_1(X) \longrightarrow C_0(X) \longrightarrow 0$$

where each $C_i(X)$ is $\mathbb{Z}$. Computing the boundary maps,

$$\partial(\sigma_n) = \begin{cases} \sigma_{n-1} & \text{if } n \text{ is even} \\ 0 & \text{if } n \text{ is odd} \end{cases}$$

Hence the chain complex is

$$\cdots \longrightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{\mathrm{id}} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{0} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{\mathrm{id}} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{0} 0$$

We can then compute the homology groups explicity. □

Lemma 2.2.8. If we write

$$X = \bigsqcup_{\alpha \in A} X_\alpha$$

as a disjoint union of path components, then

$$\mathrm{H}_i(X) = \bigoplus_{\alpha \in A} \mathrm{H}_i(X_\alpha)$$

Moreover, if X is path connected (and nonempty), then $\mathrm{H}_0(X) = \mathbb{Z}$.

Proof. Since Δ^i is path connected, the image of a continuous map $\sigma : \Delta^i \to X$ must lie within some X_α. Moreover, so does the image of all of the boundary faces $\sigma \circ \delta_j$. So in fact

$$(C_i(X), \partial) = \left(\bigoplus_{\alpha \in A} C_i(X_\alpha), \partial \right)$$

Note that a general element of $C_i(X)$ is a finite linear combination of i-simplicies in X. So its image can only meet finitely many of the X_α.

Now suppose X is path connected. Define a function

$$\begin{aligned} \varepsilon : C_0(X) &\to \mathbb{Z} \\ \sum n_i \sigma_i &\mapsto \sum n_i \end{aligned}$$

Since X is nonempty, ε is surjective. On the other hand, if $\tau \in C_1(X)$, then $\varepsilon(\tau(1) - \tau(0)) = 0$. So by linearity,

$$\mathrm{im}(\partial : C_1(X) \to C_0(X)) \subseteq \ker(\varepsilon)$$

Recall

$$\mathrm{H}_0(X) = \frac{C_0(X)}{\mathrm{im}(\partial : C_1(X) \to C_0(X))}$$

and so ε descends to a map $H_0(X) \to \mathbb{Z}$. Now we will use the fact that X is path connected. Suppose

$$\sum n_i \sigma_i \in \ker(\varepsilon)$$

and fix a base point $p \in X$. Since the σ_i are 0-simplicies, they correspond to points in X. Moreover, since X is path connected, we can choose paths

$$\tau_i : \Delta^1 \to X$$

such that $\tau_i(1) = \sigma_i$ and $\tau_i(0) = p$. In this case,

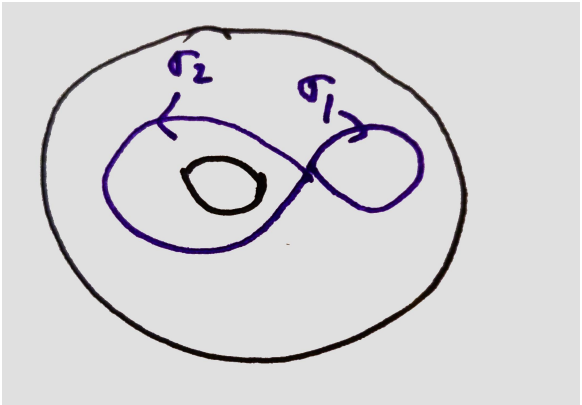
$$\partial\left(\sum n_i \tau_i\right) = \sum n_i \partial\tau_i = \sum n_i \sigma_i - (\sum n_i)p$$

But we assumed $\sum n_i = 0$, and so $\ker(\varepsilon) \subseteq \mathrm{im}(\partial : C_1(X) \to C_0(X))$. This then gives the required result, as the induced map

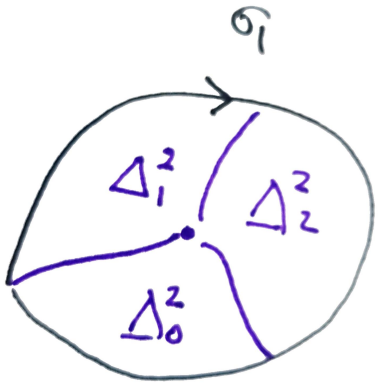
$$H_0(X) \to \mathbb{Z}$$

is then an isomorphism. □

Informal conjecture: We can't compute anything else.
Therefore, we need to develop some more structure about (co)homology.
What are we doing? Consider the case of X being an annulus in $\mathbb{R}^2$. We have 1-simplices



(σ_1 null-homotopic, σ_2 winds around the origin)
In this case, $\partial\sigma_1 = \partial\sigma_2 = 0$, and so they define homology classes.



Moreover, $[\partial\sigma_1] = 0$, since we have triangles τ_0, τ_1, τ_2 such that

$$\partial(\tau_0 + \tau_1 + \tau_2) = \sigma_1$$

From this intuition, $[\sigma_2] \neq 0$. But to show even this, we need some structure theorems.

Lecture 4

2.3 Fundamental properties

(Co)homology is useful by virtue of various structural properties.

Theorem 2.3.1 (homotopy invariance). If $f, g : X \to Y$ are homotopic, then the induced maps f_*, g_* on homology, and the induced maps f^*, g^* on cohomology agree.

Corollary 2.3.2. If $X \simeq Y$, then $H_*(X) \simeq Y$, and if f is a homotopy equivalence, then f_* induces the isomorphism. For cohomology we have the similar statement, but with f^*.

Proof of the corollary. $X \simeq Y$ via f is saying that there exists $g : Y \to X$, such that $g \circ f \simeq \mathrm{id}_X$, and $f \circ g \simeq \mathrm{id}_Y$. That is,

$$g_* \circ f_* = \mathrm{id} \quad \text{and} \quad f_* \circ g_* = \mathrm{id}$$

□

We think of this as saying that (co)homology is "insensitive to inessential deformations".

Example 2.3.3

Recall $\{0\} \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is a homotopy equivalence, and so

$$\mathrm{H}_*(\mathbb{R}^n) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z} & * = 0 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

The other key structural property relies on some homological algebra.

Definition 2.3.4 (exact sequence)

An *exact sequence* is a chain complex with $H_*(C_*, \partial) = 0$. That is,

$$\mathrm{im}(\partial : C_{n+1} \to C_n) = \ker(\partial : C_n \to C_{n-1})$$

Similarly, a cochain complex is *exact* if $H^*(C^*, \partial) = 0$.
If A, B, C are abelian groups, and we have

$$A \xrightarrow{\alpha} B \xrightarrow{\beta} C$$

Then this sequence is *exact at* B if $\ker(\beta) = \mathrm{im}(\alpha)$.

Definition 2.3.5 (short exact sequence)

A *short exact sequence* is an exact sequence of the form

$$0 \longrightarrow A \xrightarrow{\alpha} B \xrightarrow{\beta} C \longrightarrow 0$$

which is exact at all places. That is, α is injective, β is surjective, and $\mathrm{im}(\alpha) = \ker(\beta)$.

Example 2.3.6 (i) If

$$0 \longrightarrow A \xrightarrow{\alpha} B \longrightarrow 0$$

is exact, then α is an isomorphism.

(ii) If

$$0 \longrightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{\alpha} G \xrightarrow{\beta} \mathbb{Z}/n \longrightarrow 0$$

is exact, then we could have $G = \mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z}/n$, or we could have $G = \mathbb{Z}$, with $\alpha(x) = nx$.

Theorem 2.3.7 (Mayer-Vietoris). If $X = A \cup B$, with A, B open subsets of X. Then there exists *Mayer-Vietoris boundary homomorphism*

$$\partial_{MV} : \mathrm{H}_{i+!}(X) \to \mathrm{H}_i(A \cap B)$$

for all i, so that the sequence

$$\cdots \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_{i+1}(X) \xrightarrow{\partial_{MV}} \mathrm{H}_i(A \cap B) \xrightarrow{i_{A*} \oplus i_{B*}} \mathrm{H}_i(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}_i(B) \xrightarrow{j_{A*} - j_{B*}} \mathrm{H}_i(X) \qquad \cdots$$

is exact, where

$$\begin{array}{ccc} A \cap B & \xrightarrow{i_A} & A \\ {\scriptstyle i_B}\downarrow & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle j_A} \\ B & \xrightarrow[j_B]{} & X \end{array}$$

Similarly, we have a homomorphism

$$\partial^*_{MV} : H^i(A \cap B) \to H^{i+1}(X)$$

which makes the sequence

$$\cdots \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}^{i-1}(A \cap B) \xrightarrow{\partial^*_{MV}} \mathrm{H}^i(X) \xrightarrow{j_A^* \oplus -j_B^*} \mathrm{H}^i(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}^i(B) \xrightarrow{i_A^* + i_B^*} \mathrm{H}^i(A \cap B) \xrightarrow{\partial^*_{MV}} \mathrm{H}^{i-1}(X) \longrightarrow \cdots$$

exact.

Remark 2.3.8. (i) The Mayer-Vietoris maps are not induced by maps of spaces, but they are constructed algebraically. Suppose $\sigma \in C_{i+1}(X)$ is a cycle, and suppose we can write $\sigma = \sigma_A + \sigma_B$, where $\sigma_A \in C_{i+1}(A)$ and $\sigma_B \in C_{i+1}(B)$ are chains, and in general, not cycles. Since $\partial\sigma = 0, \partial\sigma_A + \partial\sigma_B = 0$. We define

$$\partial_{MV}(\sigma) = [\partial\sigma_A] \in \mathrm{H}_i(A \cap B)$$

Since $\partial\sigma_A \in C_i(A)$, we must have that $\partial\sigma_A = -\partial\sigma_B \in C_i(A \cap B)$. As $\partial^2 = 0$, $\partial\sigma_A$ is closed and so it represents a class in homology.

This is (correct) intuition, but not a proof.

(ii) The Mayer-Vietoris sequence is natural for maps of pairs. That is, if $X = A \cup B$, $Y = C \cup D$, and $f : X \to Y$ has $f(A) \subseteq C$, $f(B) \subseteq D$, then we have a map of long exact sequences

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccccc} \cdots & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i+1}(X) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(A \cap B) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}_i(B) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(X) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(A \cap B) & \longrightarrow & \cdots \\ & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle f_*} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle f_*} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle f_* \oplus f_*} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle f_*} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle f_*} & & \\ \cdots & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i+1}(Y) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(C \cap D) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(C) \oplus \mathrm{H}_i(D) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(Y) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(C \cap D) & \longrightarrow & \cdots \end{array}$$

where all the squares commute.

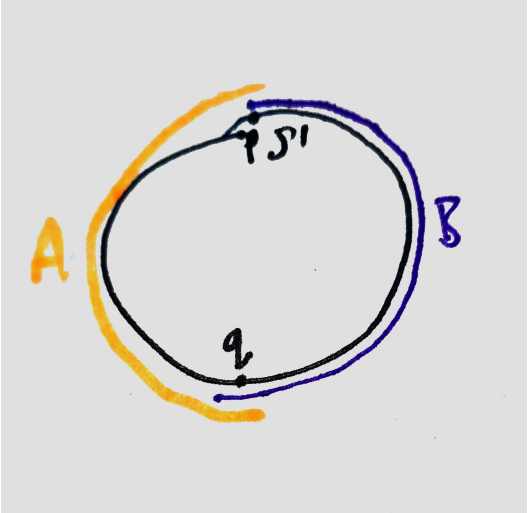
2.4 Examples of Homology calculations

We will prove these later when we use them.

Example 2.4.1

$$\mathrm{H}_*(S^1) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z} & * = 0, 1 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Proof. Here, $S^1 = A \cup B$, where $A, B \simeq \{*\}$ and $A \cap B \simeq \{p, q\}$.



Using this, we know $\mathrm{H}_*(A), \mathrm{H}_*(B), \mathrm{H}_*(A \cap B)$. For $i \geq 2$, we have

$$\cdots \longrightarrow \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_i(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}_i(B)}_{=0} \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_i(X) \longrightarrow \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_{i-1}(A \cap B)}_{=0} \longrightarrow \cdots$$

and so $\mathrm{H}_i(X) = 0$ for all $i \geq 2$. For lowe degrees, we have

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_1(A \cap B)}_{=0} & \longrightarrow & \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_1(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}_1(B)}_{=0} & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_1(X) & & \\ & & & \searrow^{\partial_{MV}} & & & \\ \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_0(A \cap B)}_{\langle p \rangle \oplus \langle q \rangle} & \xrightarrow{\alpha} & \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_0(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}_0(B)}_{=\mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z}} & \longrightarrow & \underbrace{\mathrm{H}_0(X)}_{=\mathbb{Z}} & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

where $\alpha(n, m) = (n + m, n + m)$. Moreover, we use that S^1 is path connected, and H_0 is generated by any point. Therefore, $\mathrm{H}_1(X)$ sits in an exact sequence

$$0 \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_1(X) \xrightarrow{\partial_{MV}} \mathbb{Z}^2 \xrightarrow{\alpha} \mathbb{Z}^2 \xrightarrow{\beta} \mathbb{Z} \longrightarrow 0$$

and so,

$$\mathrm{H}_1(X) \simeq \ker(\alpha) = \langle (1, -1) \rangle = \mathbb{Z}(p - q)$$

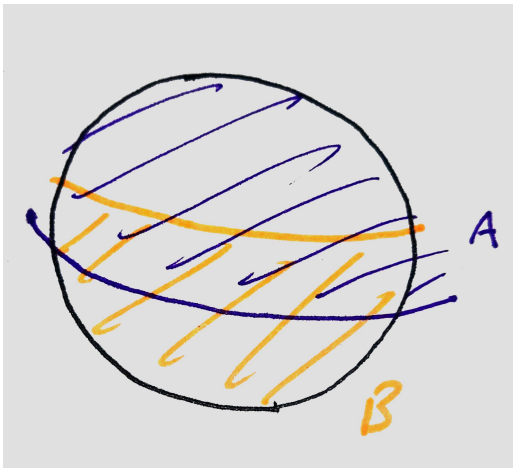
□

Example 2.4.2

$$\mathrm{H}^*(S^n) = \mathrm{H}_*(S^n) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z} & * = 0, n \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Lecture 5

Proof. We will compute the cohomology. Define $A, B \subseteq S^n$ by



Then A, B are contractible, and $A \cap B$ is homotopic to S^{n-1}. We work inductively in n, using the Mayer-Vietoris sequence. The sequence gives

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} \cdots & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}^{i-1}(S^n) & & \\ & \overset{\partial^*_{MV}}{\swarrow} & & & \\ \mathrm{H}^i(S^n) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}^i(*) \oplus \mathrm{H}^i(*) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}^{i-1}(S^{n-1}) \\ & \overset{\partial^*_{MV}}{\swarrow} & & & \\ \mathrm{H}^{i+1}(S^n) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}^{i+1}(*) \oplus \mathrm{H}^i(*) & \longrightarrow & \cdots \end{array}$$

If $i > 0$, we have

$$0 \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}^i(S^{n-1}) \xrightarrow{\partial^*_{MV}} \mathrm{H}^{i+1}(S^n) \longrightarrow 0$$

and so

$$\mathrm{H}^i(S^{n-1}) = \mathrm{H}^{i+1}(S^n)$$

This gives us almost everything inductively. We can assume $n \geq 2$. At the bottom of the sequence, we have

$$\underbrace{\mathrm{H}^0(S^n)}_{=\mathbb{Z}} \longrightarrow \underbrace{\mathrm{H}^0(*) \oplus \mathrm{H}^0(*)}_{=\mathbb{Z}\oplus\mathbb{Z}} \xrightarrow{\alpha} \underbrace{\mathrm{H}^0(S^{n-1})}_{=\mathbb{Z}} \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}^1(S^n) \longrightarrow 0$$

We have shown (on examples sheet 1) that $\mathrm{H}^0(X) = 1$, generated by the 0-dimensional cochain, sending $p \mapsto 1$. As

$$\alpha(p, q) = p + q$$

α is surjective. Thus, we have

$$0 \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}^1(S^n) \longrightarrow 0$$

and so $\mathrm{H}^1(S^n) = 0$. □

Corollary 2.4.3. $\mathbb{R}^n$ is homeomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^m$ if and only if $m = n$.

Proof. Suppose $f : \mathbb{R}^n \to \mathbb{R}^m$ is a homeomorphism. This gives us a homeomorphism

$$f : \mathbb{R}^n \setminus 0 \to \mathbb{R}^m \setminus \{f(0)\}$$

But $\mathbb{R}^n \setminus \{*\}$ is homotopy equivalent to $\S^{n-1}$. Thus f induces an isomorphism in homology

$$\mathrm{H}_i(S^{n-1}) = \mathrm{H}_i(S^{m-1})$$

But by our homology computations, this implies that $n = m$. □

Note in the below we assume $n > 0$.

Definition 2.4.4 (degree)

Suppose $f : S^n \to S^n$ is a continuous map, then f induces a map

$$f_* : \mathrm{H}_n(S^n) \to \mathrm{H}_n(S^n)$$

which is multiplication by some $d \in \mathbb{Z}$. We call $\deg(f) = d$ the *degree* of f.

Remark 2.4.5. Since $\mathrm{H}_n(S^n) = \mathbb{Z}$ which is free, therefore f_* is determined by $f_*(1)$. Moreover, we will need to use the *same* identification of $\mathrm{H}_n(S^n) = \mathbb{Z}$, and so $\deg(f)$ is well defined. Note that if we use different isomorphisms, then $\deg(f)$ is only defined up to a sign.

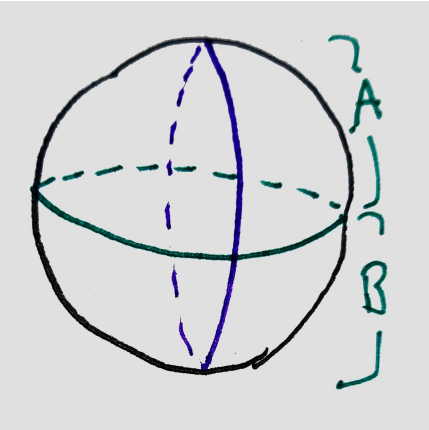
Note that

- if $f \simeq g$, then $\deg(f) = \deg(g)$,
- $\deg(\mathrm{id}) = 1$.
- $\deg(\mathrm{const}) = 0$, since the constant map factors through $\{*\}$, and so the induced map on homology factors through $\mathrm{H}^n(*) = 0$.

Lemma 2.4.6. If $A \in O(n+1)$, then A acts on S^n, and we have

$$\deg(A) = \det(A) \in \{\pm 1\}$$

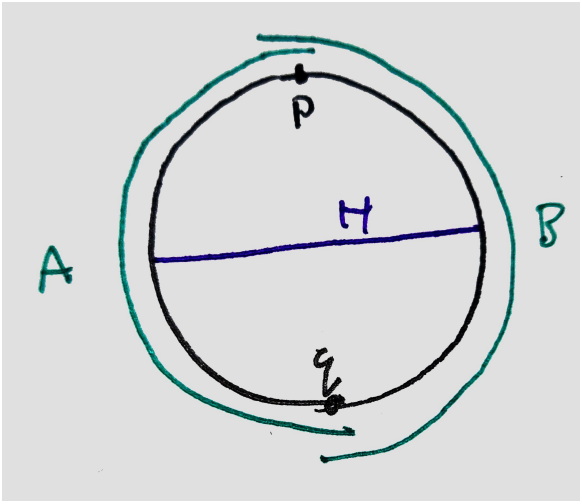
Proof. The group $O(n+1)$ has two path components. By homotopy invariance of degree, any A is homotopic to id_{S^n}, or a reflection in an equatorial hyperplane H.



The reflection preserves $A, B, A \cap B$, and H intersects $A \cap B = S^{n-1}$ at two points. The Mayer-Vietoris sequence gives

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_n(S^n) & \xrightarrow{\cong} & \mathrm{H}_{n-1}(S^{n-1}) & \longrightarrow & 0 \\ & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle A_*} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle A_*} & & \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_n(S^n) & \xrightarrow[\cong]{} & \mathrm{H}_{n-1}(S^{n-1}) & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

The two vertical maps are the same. Therefore it suffices to consider the result on S^1.



Recall our computation of $H_1(S^1)$ has

$$0 \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_1(S^1) \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_0(p \sqcup q) \xrightarrow{\alpha} \mathrm{H}_0(A) \oplus \mathrm{H}_0(B) \longrightarrow \cdots$$

where $\alpha(u, v) = (u + v, u + v)$. Hence $H_1(S^1)$ is generated by $(1, -1)$, which we can think of as $p - q$. But in this case, reflection in H swaps p and q, and so it acts on $H^1(S^1)$ by multiplication by -1. □

Corollary 2.4.7. The antipodal map $a_n : S^n \to S^n$ has degree $(-1)^{n+1}$.

Proof. a_n is orthogonal. Or equivalently, it is a composition of $n + 1$ reflections, and we have that

$$\deg(fg) = \deg(f)\deg(g)$$

□

Corollary 2.4.8. If $f : S^n \to S^n$ has no fixed point, then f is homotopic to the antipodal map.

Proof. In fact, we will see that $f(x) \neq g(x)$ for all $x \in S^n$, then $f \simeq a_n \circ g$. Taking $g = \mathrm{id}$ gives the result. Consider the map

$$x \mapsto \frac{tf(x) - (1-t)g(x)}{\left\| tf(x) - (1-t)g(x) \right\|}$$

for $0 \leq t \leq 1$. Note that the denominator never vanishes. This then defines a homotopy from f to $-g$. □

Using this, the degree of any map without fixed points is $(-1)^{n+1}$. Another corollary is that if $f(x) \neq -x$ for all $x \in S^n$, then $f \simeq a \circ a = \mathrm{id}$.

Definition 2.4.9 (vector field on S^n)
A *vector field on* S^n is a map $v : S^n \to \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, such that for all $x \in S^n$,

$$\langle x, v(x) \rangle = 0$$

Proposition 2.4.10 (Hairy ball theorem). S^n has a nowhere vanishing vector field if and only if n is odd.

Proof. If $n = 2k - 1$,

$$v(x_1, y_1, \ldots, x_k, y_k) = (-y_1, x_2, \ldots, -y_k, x_k)$$

works.

Now suppose a nowhere vanishing vector field $v : S^n \to \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ exists. By normalising, i.e. considering

$$\frac{v(x)}{\|v(x)\|}$$

we can consider $v : S^n \to S^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$. Now consider the family

$$v_t(x) = \cos(t)x + \sin(t)v(x)$$

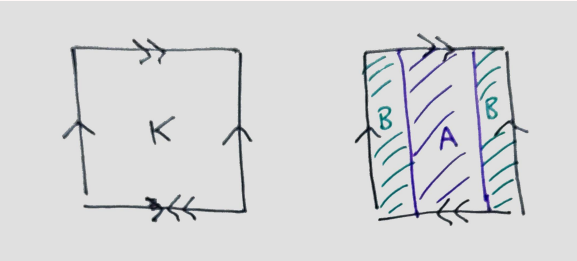
for $0 \leq t \leq \pi$, which has unit length as we assumed $v(x)$ and x are orthogonal. This family has $v_0 = \mathrm{id}$, and $v_\pi = a_n$. Thus, we have that

$$1 = \deg(\mathrm{id}) = \deg(a_n) = (-1)^{n+1}$$

□

Example 2.4.11 (Klein bottle)

Recall the Klein bottle is the result if we glue two Möbius strips together along their common boundary S^1. That is, we define K by the gluing pattern



In this case, we can write $K = A \cup B$, where A, B are Möbius bands, i.e. $A \simeq S^1 \simeq B$. Moreover, $A \cap B \simeq S^1$ as well. The interesting part of the Mayer-Vietoris sequence for homology is as follows:

$$0 \longrightarrow H_2(K) \longrightarrow H_1(A \cap B) \xrightarrow{\psi} H_1(A) \oplus H_1(B) \longrightarrow H_1(K) \longrightarrow H_0(A \cap B) \xrightarrow{\alpha} H_0(A) \oplus H_0(B)$$

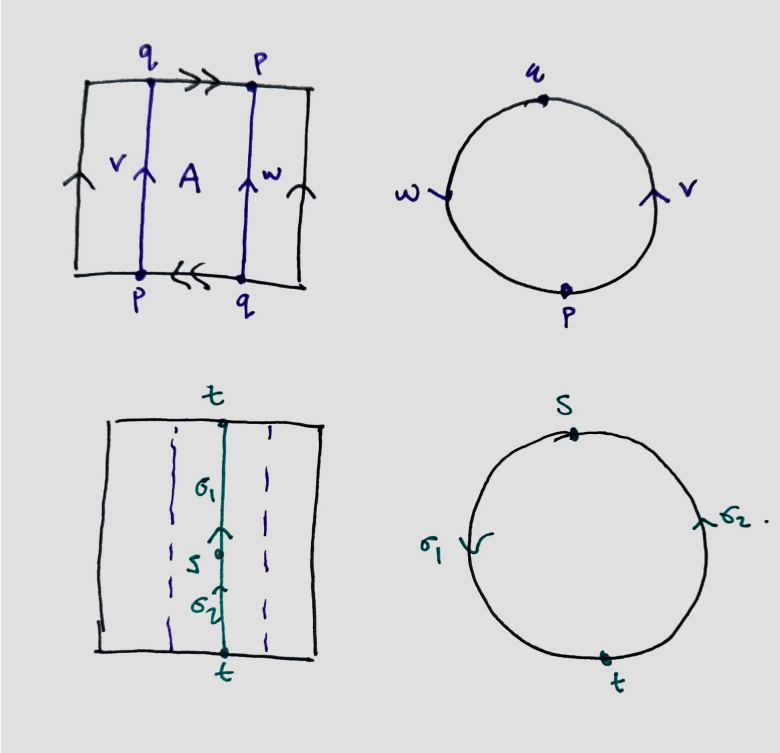
Recall $\alpha(1) = (1, 1)$, and so α is injective, and the sequence becomes

$$0 \longrightarrow H_2(K) \longrightarrow H_1(A \cap B) \xrightarrow{\psi} H_1(A) \oplus H_1(B) \longrightarrow H_1(K) \longrightarrow 0$$

By exactness, $H_1(K) \cong (\mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z})/\operatorname{im}(\psi) = \operatorname{coker}(\psi)$ and $H_2(K) \cong \ker(\psi)$.

Claim 2.4.12. $\psi(1) = (2, 2)$, and so $H_2(K) = 0$, and $H_1(K) = \mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z}/2$.

Proof of claim. We will use the decomposition of K into two Möbius bands.



In this case, $H_1(A \cap B) = \mathbb{Z}\langle v + w \rangle$, and $H_1(A) = \mathbb{Z}\langle \sigma_1 + \sigma_2 \rangle$. At chain level, there exists a collection of 2-simplices in A, with boundary $c - (\sigma_1 + \sigma_2)$. Therefore, $v \mapsto \sigma_1 + \sigma_2$ and $w \mapsto \sigma_1 + \sigma_2$. With this, we have that (by symmetry),

$$\psi(1) = (2, 2)$$

□

Remark 2.4.13. (i) In cohomology, $H^2(K) = \mathbb{Z}/2$ and $H^1(K) = \mathbb{Z}$. That is, the homology and the cohomology are not the same.

(ii) We defined $C_i(X) = \left\{\sum_{\text{finite}} a_j \sigma_j \mid a_j \in \mathbb{Z}, \sigma_j \text{ is an } i\text{-simplex}\right\}$. But we can also define

$$C_i(X; G) = \left\{\sum_{\text{finite}} a_j \sigma_j \;\middle|\; a_j \in G, \sigma_j \text{ is an } i\text{-simplex}\right\}$$

for any abelian group G. ∂ is defined as before, and we get a chain complex $C_*(X; G)$ and homology $H_*(X; G)$. If we instead computed

$$H_*(K; \mathbb{Z}/2) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z}/2 & * = 0 \\ \mathbb{Z}/2 \oplus \mathbb{Z}/2 & * = 1 \\ \mathbb{Z}/2 & * = 2 \end{cases}$$

since $\psi = 0$ if we used $\mathbb{Z}/2$ coefficients.

Interlude on relative homology

Some of the questions on sheet 1 concern *relative homology*. If $A \subseteq X$ is a subspace, then any simplex $\sigma : \Delta^1 \to A$ is a simplex in X. Moreover, if σ is a simplex in A, so are all of its boundary faces. Thus, the natural map induced by the inclusion map,

$$C_i(A) \hookrightarrow C_i(X)$$

defines a chain map. Using this, $C_*(A)$ is a *subcomplex* of $C_*(X)$. In particular, we can define the *quotient complex*,

$$C_i(X, A) = \frac{C_i(X)}{C_i(A)}$$

and this is a chain complex, with ∂ induced by the boundary operator on $C_i(X)$. Another way of thinking about $C_i(X, A)$ is that it is the free abelian group on i-simplices in X not wholly contained in A. The homology of $C_*(X, A)$, denoted $\mathrm{H}_*(X, A)$ is called *relative homology*.

We have a long exact sequence

$$\cdots \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_i(A) \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_i(X) \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_i(X, A) \xrightarrow{\partial} \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(A) \longrightarrow \cdots$$

If A and X are 'well behaved', then $\mathrm{H}_i(X, A) \cong \mathrm{H}_i(X/A)$ for $i > 0$, where X/A is the quotient space where we quotient A into a point.

2.5 Homotopy invariance

Recall if $f, g : X \to Y$ are homotopic, we would like to show that the induced maps on homology and cohomology are the same. Recall also that the maps are induced by (co)chain maps on (co)chain complexes.

Definition 2.5.1 (chain homotopic)

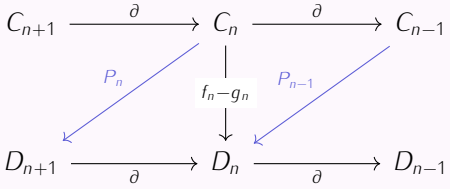
Let C_*, D_* be chain complexes. Let $f_*, g_* : C_* \to D_*$ be chain maps. We say that they are *chain homotopic* if there exists maps

$$P_n : C_n \to D_{n+1}$$

for all n, such that

$$P_{n-1} \circ \partial + \partial \circ P_n = f_n - g_n$$

for all n.



Lemma 2.5.2. Suppose $f_*, g_* : C_* \to D_*$ are chain homotopic. Then they induce the same map on homology.

Proof. Let $\alpha \in C_i$ be a cycle, that is, $\partial\alpha = 0$. By definition, $f_*[\alpha] = [f(\alpha)]$. Consider

$$f_i(\alpha) - g_i(\alpha) = (f_i - g_i)(\alpha) = (\partial P + P\partial)(\alpha) = \partial(P\alpha)$$

But this is in the image of ∂, and so the corresponding homology classes are the same. □

Lecture 7

Exercise: Chain homotopy is an equivalence relation on chain maps $C_* \to D_*$.

Theorem 2.5.3 (homotopy invariance of homology)**.** If $f, g : X \to Y$ are homotopic, then the induced maps on homology are the same.

Proof. Let $i_j : X \hookrightarrow X \times \{j\}$ be the natural map, $F : X \times I \to Y$ the homotopy between f, g. But then

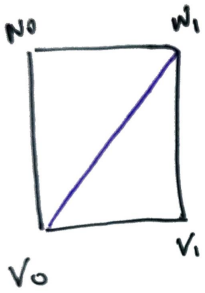
$$f_* = (F \circ i_0)_* = F_* \circ i_{0*}$$

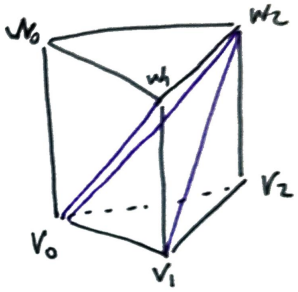
Therefore, it suffices to show that i_{0*} and i_{1*} are chain homotopic.

Thus, we want

$$P : C_n(X) \to C_{n+1}(X \times [0, 1])$$

such that $\partial P + P\partial = i_{0*} - i_{1*}$. P is a *prism operator* from a universal way of decomposing $\Delta^n \times [0, 1]$ into a finite collection of $n + 1$-simplices.





Consider the ordered collections$[v_0, \dots, v_i, w_i, \dots, w_n]$, where $[v_0, \dots, v_n] = \Delta^n \times \{0\}$ and $[w_0, \dots, w_n] = \Delta^n \times \{1\}$. We define P by

$$P(\sigma) = \sum_{i=0}^{n} (-1)^i (\sigma \times I)|_{[v_0,\dots,v_i,w_i,\dots,w_n]}$$

Claim 2.5.4. $\partial P + P\partial = i_{i*} - i_{0*}$. That is,

$$\partial P = i_{1*} - i_{0*} - P\partial$$

i.e. "boundary of prism is the top and bottom faces, as well as the prism of the boundary".

Proof.

$$\partial P(\sigma) = \sum_{j \le i} (-1)^i (-1)^j (\sigma \times I)|_{[v_0,\dots,\widehat{v_j},\dots,v_i,w_i,\dots,w_n]} + \sum_{j \ge i} (-1)^i (-1)^{j+1} (\sigma \times I)|_{[v_0,\dots,v_i,w_i,\dots,\widehat{w_j},\dots,w_n]}$$

The terms when $j = i$ cancel, except for

$$(\sigma \times I)|_{[w_0,\dots,w_n]} - (\sigma \times I)|_{[v_0,\dots,v_n]}$$

which are the top and bottom faces. The terms with $i > j$ and $i < j$ comprise, up to a sign, $P(\partial\sigma)$. Just compute (in a dark room with some gin). □

□

Remark 2.5.5. If C^*, D^* are cochain complexes, cochain maps f^*, g^* are cochain homotopic if we have $P^i : C^i \to D^{i-1}$, such that

$$\partial P + P\partial = f^* - g^*$$

It is easy to check that in this case, f^* and g^* induce the saem map $\mathrm{H}^*(C^*) \to \mathrm{H}^*(D^*)$.

With this, our prism operator $P : C_n(X) \to C_{n+1}(X \times [0,1])$ has a dual

$$P^* : C^{n+1}(X \times [0,1]) \to C^n(X)$$
$$P^*(f) = f \circ P$$

Dualising everything, the relation $\partial P + P\partial = i_{1*} - i_{0*}$ becomes

$$\partial P^* + P^*\partial = i_1^* - i_0^*$$

and thus homotopic maps induce the same map on cohomology.

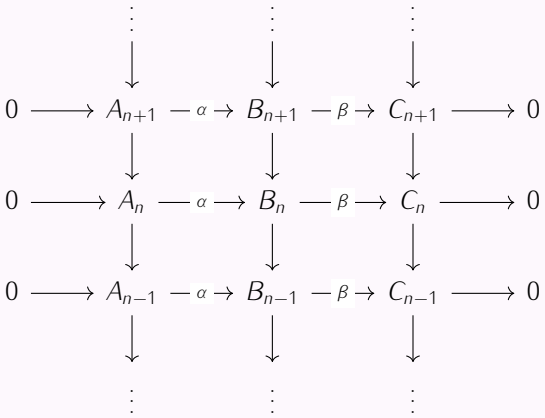
2.6 Snake lemma

Definition 2.6.1

A *short exact sequence of chain complexes*

$$0 \longrightarrow A_* \longrightarrow B_* \longrightarrow C_* \longrightarrow 0$$

is a diagram



such that the squares commute (i.e. α, β are chain maps) and the rows are exact.

Proposition 2.6.2 (Snake lemma). Suppose we have a SES $0 \to A_* \to B_* \to C_* \to 0$ of chain complexes, then we have a long exact sequence of homology

$$\cdots \longrightarrow \mathrm{H}_{n+1}(C_*) \xrightarrow{\delta} \mathrm{H}_n(A_*) \xrightarrow{\alpha_*} \mathrm{H}_n(B_*) \xrightarrow{\beta_*} \mathrm{H}_n(C_*) \xrightarrow{\delta} \mathrm{H}_{n-1}(A_*) \longrightarrow \cdots$$

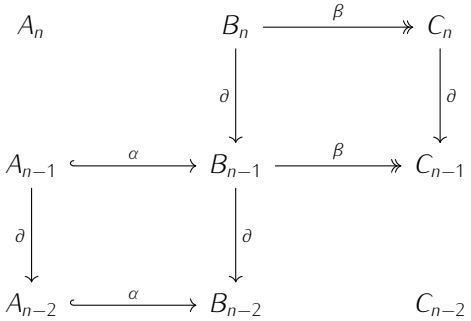
Proof. We will construct δ, but leave all other details. Suppose $c_n \in C_n$ is a cycle, representing a homology class $[c_n] \in H_n(C^*)$. Horizontal exactness means $c_n = \beta(b_n)$ for some $b_n \in B_n$. But

$$\beta(\partial b_n) = \partial\beta(b_n) = \partial c_n = 0$$

Hence $\partial b_n \in \ker(\beta) = \mathrm{im}(\alpha)$, by horizontal exactness. Thus, we have $a_{n-1} \in A_{n-1}$ such that $\alpha(a_{n-1}) = \partial b_n$. In this case,

$$\alpha(\partial a_{n-1}) = \partial\alpha(a_{n-1}) = \partial^2 b_n = 0$$

But α is injective, and so $\partial a_{n-1} = 0$, and this represents a cycle.



We define $\delta([c_n]) = [a_{n-1}]$.

To complete the proof:

1. Check that δ is independent of the choices of c_n, b_n, a_{n-1}.
2. δ is a homomorphism.
3. Check that the sequence is exact.

□

Example 2.6.3

Recall if G is an abelian group, we introducted $C_*(X;G)$. If we started with an SES of abelian groups

$$0 \longrightarrow G_1 \longrightarrow G_2 \longrightarrow G_3 \longrightarrow 0$$

then there is an associated SES of chain complexes

$$0 \longrightarrow C_*(X;G_1) \longrightarrow C_*(X;G_2) \longrightarrow C_*(X;G_3) \longrightarrow 0$$

The homomorphism

$$\mathrm{H}_n(X;G_3) \to \mathrm{H}_{n-1}(X;G_1)$$

are often called *Bockstein homomorphisms*.

Example 2.6.4

If $A \subseteq X$ is a subspace, then we defined relative homology, using the SES

$$0 \longrightarrow C_*(A) \longrightarrow C_*(X) \longrightarrow C_*(X,A) \longrightarrow 0$$

The associated long exact sequence includes a boundary map

$$\delta : \mathrm{H}_n(X,A) \to \mathrm{H}_{n-1}(A)$$

and we have a LES of the pair (X,A).

2.7 Excision

Theorem 2.7.1 (Excision)**.** Let X be a topological space, $A \subseteq X$ a subspace, $Z \subseteq X$ a subspace with $\mathrm{Cl}(Z) \subseteq \mathrm{Int}(A)$. Then the inclusion

$$i : (X \setminus \mathbb{Z}, A \setminus Z) \to (X,A)$$

induces an isomorphism on relative homology

$$i_* : \mathrm{H}_n(X \setminus Z, A \setminus Z) \to \mathrm{H}_n(X,A)$$

Lemma 2.7.2 (five lemma)**.** Suppose we have a diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccc} A & \longrightarrow & B & \longrightarrow & C & \longrightarrow & D & \longrightarrow & E \\ \downarrow{\scriptstyle \alpha} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle \beta} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle \gamma} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle \delta} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle \varepsilon} \\ A' & \longrightarrow & B' & \longrightarrow & C' & \longrightarrow & D' & \longrightarrow & E' \end{array}$$

where the rows are exact, $\alpha, \beta, \delta, \varepsilon$ are isomorphisms, then so is δ.

Corollary 2.7.3. If $f : (X,A) \to (Y,B)$ is a map of pairs, and the maps $f_* : \mathrm{H}_*(X) \to |HH_*(Y)$ and $f_* : \mathrm{H}_*(A) \to \mathrm{H}_*(B)$ are isomorphisms, then so are the induced maps on relative homology

$$f_* : \mathrm{H}_*(X,A) \to \mathrm{H}_*(Y,B)$$

Proof. Follows from the five lemma and the LES of relative homology. □

Lecture 8

2.8 Relative homology

Definition 2.8.1 (Reduced homology)

If X is a topological space, $x_0 \in X$ is a base point, then we define the *reduced homology of* X as

$$\tilde{H}_*(X) = H_*(X, x_0)$$

It is easy to see that $\tilde{H}_i(X) = H_i(X)$ for $i > 0$, and $\tilde{H}_i(X) \oplus \mathbb{Z} = H_i(X)$.

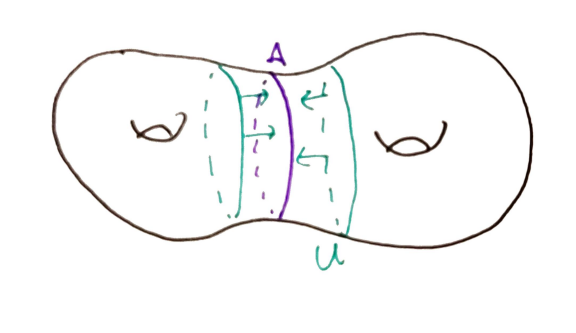
Definition 2.8.2 (good pair)

A pair (X, A) is *good* if $A \subseteq X$ is closed, and A a neighbourhood deformation retract. That is, there exists an open neighbourhood $A \subseteq U \subseteq X$ of A, and a homotopy $H : U \times [0, 1] \to U$, with

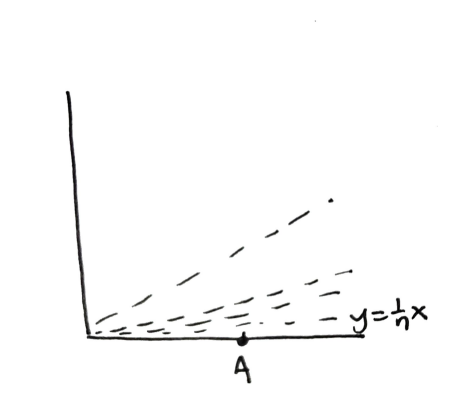
- $H(u, 0) = u$,
- $H(u, 1) \in A$ for all $u \in U$,
- $H(a, t) = a$ for all $a \in A, t \in [0, 1]$.

Example 2.8.3

One example would be a loop on Σ_2, where we can choose an annular neighbourhood.



On the other hand, consider



There is no neighbourhood retract fixing A.

Proposition 2.8.4. If (X, A) is a good pair, the natural map $(X, A) \to (X/A, A/A = \{\bullet\})$, induces isomor-

phism

$$\mathrm{H}_n(X, A) \to \mathrm{H}_n(X/A, A/A) = \tilde{\mathrm{H}}_*(X/A)$$

Proof. Let $A \subseteq U \subseteq X$ be as in the definition of a good pair, and note that $\mathrm{H}_*(A) = \mathrm{H}_*(U)$, and as such, we have an isomorphism on relative homology

$$\mathrm{H}_*(X, A) \cong \mathrm{H}_*(X, U)$$

Since the homotopy $H : U \times [0, 1] \to U$ is fixed on A, it induces a homotopy on U/A, and so

$$\frac{A}{A} = \{\bullet\} \hookrightarrow \frac{U}{A}$$

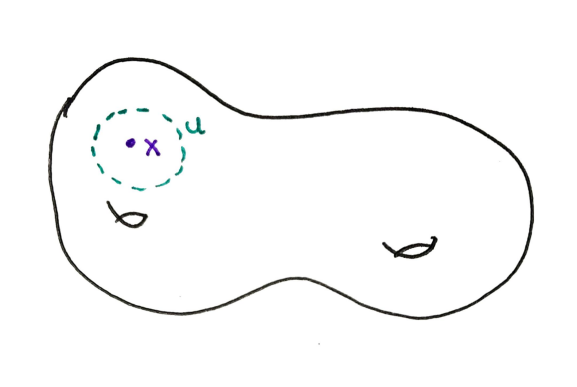
is also a neighbourhood deformation retract. With this,

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} H_*(X, A) & \xrightarrow{\cong} & H_*(X, U) & \xleftarrow{\sim} & H_*(X/A, U/A) \\ \downarrow & & & & \downarrow \text{ homeomorphism of pairs} \\ H_*(X/A, \bullet) & \xrightarrow{\cong} & H_*(X/A, U/A) & \xleftarrow{\sim} & H_*((X/A)/\bullet, (U/A)/\bullet) \end{array}$$

and so the left map is an isomorphism. Note $\sim$ is an isomorphism by excision, and $\cong$ is an isomorphism by the above, from the homotopy. □

Example 2.8.5 (i) $\mathrm{H}_j(D^n, \partial D^n) = \tilde{\mathrm{H}}_j(D^n/\partial D^n) = \tilde{\mathrm{H}}_j(S^n) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z} & j = n \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$

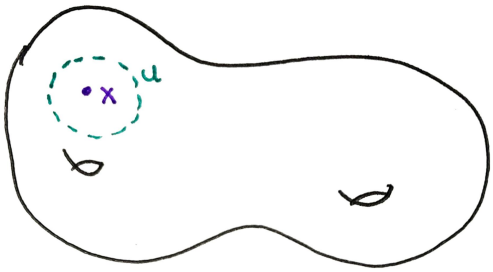
(ii) $\mathrm{H}_j(S^2, S^1_{\text{eq}}) = \tilde{\mathrm{H}}_j(S^2 \vee S^2) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z} & j = 2 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$ Since we can think of S^2/S^1 as $S^2 \vee S^2$ via



(iii) A *manifold* of dimension n is a Hausdorff topological space which is locally homeomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^n$. If M^n is a manifold, $x \in M$, then

$$\mathrm{H}_j(M, M \setminus x) \underbrace{=}_{\text{by excision}} \mathrm{H}_j(\mathbb{R}^n, \mathbb{R}^n \setminus 0) \underbrace{=}_{\text{by homotopy invariance}} \mathrm{H}_j(D^n, \partial D^n) = \mathbb{Z} \text{ when j = n}$$

For excision, we choose an open set U which is homeomorphic to a ball, and remove the complement of U.



2.9 Small simplices theorem

Both the Mayer-Vietoris property and excision will follow from the *small simplices theorem*.

Definition 2.9.1 (chain complex adapted to a cover)
Let X be a topological space,

$$\mathcal{U} = \{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in I}$$

be such that $\{\text{Int}(U_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in I}$ is an open cover of X. Let

$$C_j^{\mathcal{U}}(X) = \left\{ \sum_{\text{finite}} a_j \sigma_i \;\middle|\; a_i \in \mathbb{Z}, \sigma_i : \Delta^i \to X, \text{im}(\sigma_i) \subseteq U_{\alpha(\sigma_i)} \text{ for some } \alpha(\sigma_i) \in I \right\}$$

This defines a subcomplex of $C_*(X)$ with the usual boundary map.

Theorem 2.9.2 (small simplices)**.** The inclusion $C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X) \hookrightarrow C_*(X)$ induces an isomorphism on homology.

Remark 2.9.3. If X, Y are spaces with covers $\mathcal{U}, \mathcal{V}$, and if $f : X \to Y$ sends each U_α to some $V_{f(\alpha)}$, then f induces a map

$$f_* : C_j^{\mathcal{U}}(X) \to C_*^{\mathcal{V}}(Y)$$

But $(X, \mathcal{U}) \mapsto C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)$ is *not* functorial for arbitrary maps.

We will use small simplices to prove Mayer-Vietoris and excision.

Proof of Mayer-Vietoris, theorem 2.3.7. Let $\mathcal{U} = \{A, B\}$, where $A, B \subseteq X$ open. Then we have an SES of chain complexes

$$0 \longrightarrow C_*(A \cap B) \longrightarrow C_*(A) \oplus C_*(B) \longrightarrow C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X) \longrightarrow 0$$

The last map is surjective because we have taken the subgroup $C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)$. By the Snake lemma and the small simplices theorem, we get the Mayer-Vietoris sequence. □

Remark 2.9.4.
(i) The boundary map is what we wrote down in the special case earlier.
(ii) The naturality of Mayer-Vietoris is the naturality of the map

$$C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X) \to C_*^{\mathcal{V}}(Y)$$

where $\mathcal{U} = \{A, B\}, \mathcal{V} = \{C, D\}$ and $f(A) \subseteq C, f(B) \subseteq D$.

Proof of excision, theorem 2.7.1. Recall we have $Z \subseteq A \subseteq X$, $\text{Cl}(Z) \subseteq \text{Int}(A)$. Let $B = X \setminus Z, \mathcal{U} = \{A, B\}$. Then $\text{Int}(A) \cup \text{Int}(B) = X$, and so we can apply the small simplices theorem.

Consider

$$\frac{C_n^{\mathcal{U}}(X)}{C_n(A)} = \frac{C_n(B)}{C_n(A \cap B)} = \text{free ab. group of simplices in } B \text{ not wholly contained in } A$$

and so we have the short exact sequences

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & C_*(A) & \longrightarrow & C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X) & \longrightarrow & C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)/C_*(A) & \longrightarrow & 0 \\ & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & C_*(A) & \longrightarrow & C_*(A) & \longrightarrow & C_*(X)/C_*(A) & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

where the vertical maps are induced by the inclusion, and all squares commute. Therefore, we have long exact sequences in homology and natural maps between them,

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccccccc} \cdots & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(A) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)/C_*(A)) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(A) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)) & \longrightarrow & \cdots \\ & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle =} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle \sim} & & \downarrow & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle =} & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle \sim} & & \\ \cdots & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(A) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(X) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_i(X, A) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(A) & \longrightarrow & \mathrm{H}_{i-1}(X) & \longrightarrow & \cdots \end{array}$$

where $=$ are identity maps, $\sim$ is an isomorphism by the small simplices theorem, and so the middle map is an isomorphism by the five lemma. But we have that

$$\mathrm{H}_i(X, A) = \mathrm{H}_i(C_*(X)/C_*(A)) = \mathrm{H}_i(C_*(B)/C_*(A \cap B)) = \mathrm{H}_i(B, A \cap B) = \mathrm{H}_*(X \setminus Z, A \setminus Z)$$

□

Small simplices uses *barycentric subdivision*.

Lecture 9

If Δ^n is the standard simplex, let $b_n = \frac{1}{n+1}(1, \ldots, 1)$ be its *barycentre*. Take an i-simplex $\sigma : \Delta^i \to \Delta^n$, we define

$$\begin{aligned} \mathrm{Cone}_i^{\Delta^n}(\sigma) : \Delta^{i+1} &\to \Delta^n \\ (t_0, \ldots, t_{i+1}) &\mapsto t_0 b_n + (1 - t_0)\sigma\left(\frac{(t_1, \ldots, t_{i+1})}{1 - t_0}\right) \end{aligned}$$

We can view $\mathrm{Cone}_i^{\Delta^n} : C_i(\Delta^n) \to C_{i+1}(\Delta^n)$ by extending linearly.

Exercise:

$$\partial(\mathrm{Cone}_i^{\Delta^n}(\sigma)) = \begin{cases} \sigma - \mathrm{Cone}_{i-1}^{\Delta^n}(\partial\sigma) & i > 0 \\ \sigma - \varepsilon(\sigma) b_n & i = 0 \end{cases}$$

where

$$\begin{aligned} \varepsilon : C_0(\Delta^n) &\to \mathbb{Z} \\ \sum n_i \sigma_i &\mapsto \sum n_i \end{aligned}$$

If we define $c_\bullet : C_*(\Delta^n) \to C_*(\Delta^n)$ by

$$c_\bullet(\sigma) = \begin{cases} \varepsilon(\sigma) b_n & * = 0 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Then

$$\partial \,\mathrm{Cone}^{\Delta^n} + \mathrm{Cone}^{\Delta^n}\,\partial = \mathrm{id} - c_\bullet$$

Our aim is to introduce a barycentric subdivision operation $\varphi : C_*(X) \to C_*(X)$, which for each simplex divides the boundary and cones off to the barycentre.

Definition 2.9.5 (natural)
A collection of chain maps $\varphi^X : C_*(X) \to C_*(X)$ is *natural* if for $f : X \to Y$, $f_* \circ \varphi^X = \varphi^Y \circ f_*$.

If $\sigma : \Delta^n \to X$ is an n-simplex, and $i_n : \Delta^n \to \Delta^n$ denotes the inclusion map, then $\sigma = \sigma \circ i_n$, and so

$$\varphi^X(\sigma) = \varphi_n^X(\sigma_* i_n) = \sigma_*(\varphi_n^{\Delta^n}(\sigma))$$

Thus, if we can subdivide the n-simplex, then we can use naturality to extend φ^X for all X.

The formula is

$$\varphi_n^X(\sigma) = \sigma_* \left(\mathrm{Cone}_{n-1}^{\Delta^n} \left(\varphi_{n-1}^{\Delta^n}(\partial i_n) \right) \right)$$

Lemma 2.9.6. (i) If $\sigma = [v_0, \ldots, v_n] \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is an n-simplex, for example any n-simplex in a subdivision of Δ^N for $N \geq n$, then for any simplex τ in its barycentric subdivision,

$$\mathrm{diam}(\tau) \leq \frac{n}{n+1} \mathrm{diam}(\sigma)$$

(ii) If $\sigma \in C_n^{\mathcal{U}}(X)$, then $\varphi_n^X(\sigma) \in C_n^{\mathcal{U}}(X)$.

(iii) If $\sigma \in C_n(X)$, there exists $k > 0$ such that $(\varphi_n^X)^k(\sigma) \in C_n^{\mathcal{U}}(X)$.

Proof. (i) is just Euclidean geometry, (ii) is obvious. For (iii), we use the fact that σ is a finite sum of simplices, and so it suffices to prove this for a single simplex, since we can just take the maximum value of k. Then

$$\left\{ \sigma^{-1}(\mathrm{Int}(U_\alpha)) \right\}_{\alpha \in A}$$

is an open cover of Δ^n, which is a compact metric space, and so it has a Lebesgue number ε. That is, every open ε-ball in Δ^n lies in $\sigma^{-1}(\mathrm{Int}(U_\alpha))$ for some α. But we can choose k such that

$$\left(\frac{n}{n+1} \right)^k < \varepsilon$$

and so we are done. □

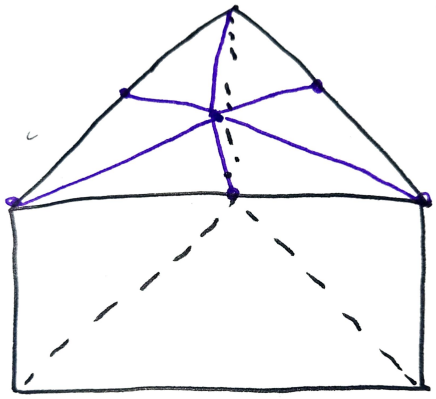
Proposition 2.9.7. There is a natural (with respect to maps of spaces) chain homotopy

$$P_X^* : C_*(X) \to C_{*+1}(X)$$

with

$$\partial P_n^X + P_{n-1}^X \partial = \varphi_n^* - \mathrm{id}_{C_n(X)}$$

Proof. As in homotopy invariance, we construct a prism $\Delta^n \times [0, 1]$ by gluing Δ^n to its barycentric subdivision. We can subdivide this into $n + 1$-simplices. See Hatcher for a formula.



Let $U : H_n(C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X)) \to H_n(C_*(X))$ denote the induced map. Choose $[\sigma] \in H_n(X)$, and choose k such that $(\varphi_n^X)^k(c) \in C_n^{\mathcal{U}}(X)$. Since φ_n^X is homotopic to id, so is $(\varphi_n^X)^k$, so there exists F such that

$$\partial F + F\partial = (\varphi^*)^k - \mathrm{id}$$

Thus, $(\varphi^X)^k(c) = c + \partial(\text{stuff})$, and so U is surjective.

On the other hand, if $U([c]) = 0$, then there exists $z \in C_{n+1}(X)$ with $\partial z = c$. There exists k such that

$$(\varphi_{n+1}^X)^k(z) \in C_{n+1}^{\mathcal{U}}(X) \quad \text{and} \quad (\varphi_{n+1}^X)^k(z) - z = (\partial F + F\partial)(c)$$

Then

$$c = \partial z = \partial(\varphi^X)^k(z) - \partial F(\partial z) \in C_{n+1}^{\mathcal{U}}$$

and so $[c] = 0$ in $H_n(C_*^{\mathcal{U}}(X))$ already. □

3 Cellular homology

Singular homology is most effective on 'nice' spaces. One example would be *cell complexes* or CW-complexes. We will introduce a more manageable chain complex, for computing the homology or cohomology of a cell complex.

3.1 Definitions

Definition 3.1.1 (cell complex)

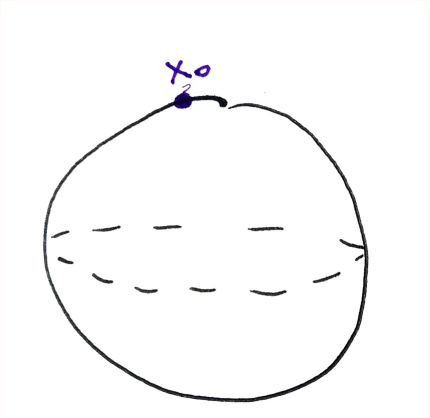
A *cell complex* is a topological space X obtained inductively as follows:

- X_0 is a discrete set,
- $$X_k = X_{k-1} \cup \bigcup_{i \in I_k} D_i^k$$
  attached via maps $\varphi_i^k : \partial D_i^k = S^{k-1} \to X$. More formally, we can write this as a quotient of
  $$X_{k-1} \sqcup \bigsqcup_{i \in I_k} D_i^k$$
- $X = \bigcup_k X_k$, where we note that $X_{k-1} \subseteq X_k$, equipped with the *weak topology*. That is, $U \subseteq X$ is open if and only if $U \cap X_k$ is open in X_k for all k.

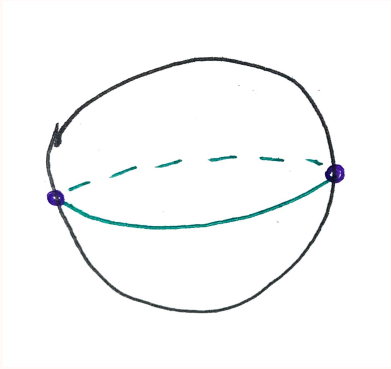
We call the D_i^k the *k-cells of X*, the φ_i^k the *attaching maps*, X_k the *k-skeleton of X*.

Example 3.1.2 (spheres)

$S^n = \{*\} \cup \{\text{open disc}\}$, i.e. $X_0 = \{*\}$ and a unique n-cell.

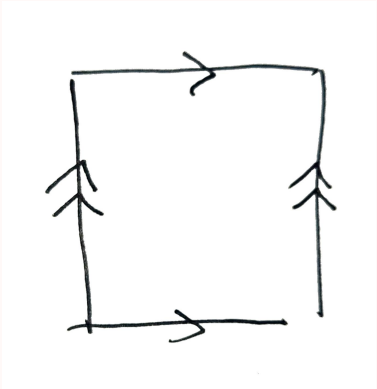


On the other hand, we can also construct S^2 as 2 0-cells, 2 1-cells and 2 2-cells.

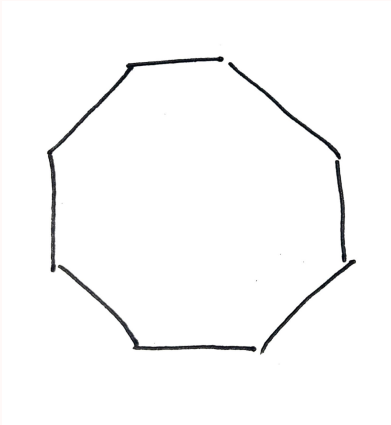


Example 3.1.3 (torus)

The standard gluing diagram of T^2 gives a cell structure with 1 0-cells, 2 1-cells and 1 2-cell.



More generally, the surface Σ_g of genus g has 1 0-cell, $2g$ 1-cells and 1 2-cells.



Example 3.1.4

If X, Y are cell complexes, $x_0 \in X_0$, $y_0 \in Y_0$, then

$$X \vee Y = \frac{X \sqcup Y}{x_0 = y_0}$$

is naturally a cell complex.

Remark 3.1.5. If X is a cell complex, then X is a disjoint union of the open cells $\mathrm{Int}(D_i^k)$.

Definition 3.1.6 (finite dimensional, finite cell complex)

If $X = X_n$ for some n, we say X is *finite dimensional*. If $X = X_n$ and for all $k \leq n$, I_k is finite (i.e. X has finitely many cells), we say that X is an *finite cell complex*.

Remark 3.1.7. A finite cell complex is compact.

Index

attaching maps, 25

barycentre, 23
barycentric subdivision, 23
Bockstein homomorphism, 19
boundary, 3
boundary homomorphism, 2

cell complex, 25
k-cells of a cell complex, 25
chain complex, 2
chain homotopic, 16
chain map, 3
coboundary, 3
cochain complex, 3
cochain maps, 4
cocycle, 3
cohomology class, 3
cohomology group, 3
k-connected, 2
contractible, 2
cycle, 3

degree
    of a map $S^n \to S^n$, 12
differential, 3

exact at, 8
exact sequence, 8
excision, 19
    proof, 22

finite cell complex, 27
finite dimensional cell complex, 27
five lemma, 19

good pair, 20

homology class, 3
homology group, 2
homotopic, 1
homotopy equivalence, 1
homotopy invariance
    of (co)homology, 8
        proof, 16

Mayer-Vietoris, 9
    homomorphism, 9
    proof, 22

natural, 24

path connected, 2
prism operator, 16

reduced homology, $\tilde{H}_*(X)$, 20
relative homology, 15

short exact sequence, 8
    of chain complexes, 17
simply connected, 2
singular chain complex, 4
singular cochain complex, 5
singular cohomology, 5
singular homology, 5
singular simplex, 4
k-skeleton of a cell complex, 25
small simplices theorem, 22
snake lemma, 18
standard simplex, 4

vector field on S^n, 13

weak topology, 25